

Olympiad Test Paper — Social Science (Class 7) — Paper 3

Chapter 13: The Story of Indian Farming

Paper 3 — (progressively harder)

Subject	Social Science (NCERT Class 7)
Chapter	13 — The Story of Indian Farming
Total Questions	60 (Multiple Choice, single correct)
Maximum Marks	240
Suggested Time	90 minutes

Marking scheme: +4 for each correct answer · -1 for each wrong answer · 0 if unattempted.

Instructions: Each question has four options (A), (B), (C), (D); exactly one is correct. Most farm work in rural India is done by women not men; the Green Revolution had a MIXED record (more grain but degraded soil, depleted groundwater, pollution, health harm and debt); and natural/organic farming responds by cutting chemical inputs rather than abandoning food production. Do not write on this paper — mark answers on your answer sheet.

1. A family grows rice on a small plot, eats almost all of it, and sells nothing in any normal year. In a good monsoon year they have a tiny surplus they exchange with a neighbour. This farming is best classified as:

- (A) commercial farming, because they exchanged a surplus once
- (B) intensive farming, because the plot is small
- (C) subsistence farming, since the primary purpose is to feed the household rather than to sell
- (D) horticulture, because rice is a food crop

2. Two farmers each have one hectare. Farmer X uses lots of labour, irrigation and inputs to get a very high yield from that hectare; Farmer Y spreads simple effort thinly over the land for a modest yield. The contrast between X and Y is best described as:

- (A) intensive versus extensive use of the same land
- (B) subsistence versus commercial purpose
- (C) kharif versus rabi season
- (D) organic versus Green Revolution farming

3. A farmer switches from growing food for her own family to growing cotton entirely for sale to a textile mill. The single most important change in how we would now classify her

farming is that it has become:

- (A) intensive, because cotton needs more care
- (B) commercial, because the crop is now grown chiefly to sell for income
- (C) rain-fed, because cotton is a kharif crop
- (D) organic, because she stopped growing food

4. Why can the very same field be called 'subsistence' by one observer and 'commercial' by another in different years?

- (A) because the soil type changes from year to year
- (B) because the classification depends on the farmer's purpose, which can change from feeding the family to selling for income
- (C) because the field physically moves between seasons
- (D) because subsistence and commercial mean exactly the same thing

5. A landless worker is hired by the day to weed and harvest on someone else's commercial farm. She herself owns no land and keeps none of the crop. Within the chapter's picture of Indian farming, she is best understood as:

- (A) part of the farm labour input, on which Indian agriculture heavily depends
- (B) a subsistence farmer feeding her own family
- (C) a commercial farmer selling her own crop
- (D) irrelevant to agriculture since she owns no land

6. A flower-and-vegetable grower near a city sells everything she raises to restaurants. Two labels could fit her at once. The pair that correctly describes her farming is:

- (A) cereal farming and subsistence farming
- (B) horticulture and commercial farming
- (C) extensive farming and rain-fed farming
- (D) the Green Revolution and terrace farming

7. A development officer says, 'Commercial farming is always better for the country than subsistence farming.' The most accurate response from the chapter is:

- (A) yes, because selling crops is always more useful than eating them
- (B) no, because subsistence farming always produces more food than commercial farming
- (C) the two are identical, so the comparison is meaningless
- (D) each suits different families and conditions; commercial farming earns income but can raise risk and cost, while subsistence farming secures a family's food

8. A farmer with a large holding cannot afford much labour or irrigation, so he plants a hardy crop across the whole area and waits for the rain, accepting a low yield per hectare. His approach is an example of:

- (A) intensive irrigated farming
- (B) commercial horticulture
- (C) the Green Revolution package
- (D) extensive, largely rain-fed farming

- 9.** Which statement best captures why 'all Indian farming is the same' is a mistaken claim?
- (A) farming differs by soil, climate, season, water source and purpose, so practices vary widely across the country
 - (B) because every farm uses exactly the same seeds and tools
 - (C) because all farms are commercial and irrigated
 - (D) because Indian farming never changed after ancient times
- 10.** A farmer wants a crop to mature on the natural rains of the wet season without needing canal water. The season she should sow in is:
- (A) the kharif (monsoon) season, sown with the arriving southwest monsoon
 - (B) the rabi (winter) season
 - (C) the zaid (short summer) season
 - (D) any season, since rainfall is the same all year
- 11.** Wheat is typically a rabi crop. A farmer who insists on sowing wheat in June, as the monsoon arrives, would most likely find that:
- (A) it grows perfectly, since all crops grow in all seasons
 - (B) it becomes a kharif crop and yields more than ever
 - (C) the crop struggles, because wheat suits the cool, drier winter season rather than the hot, wet monsoon
 - (D) it turns into a zaid crop and ripens in two weeks
- 12.** A farmer in a region served mainly by the northeast monsoon plans her main crop around when that rain arrives. She should expect the heaviest rain around:
- (A) June to September
 - (B) March to May
 - (C) evenly through all twelve months
 - (D) October to December
- 13.** The southwest monsoon arrives late and weak one year. The farms hit hardest will be those that are:
- (A) rain-fed, because they depend on the monsoon alone for water
 - (B) irrigated by canals and tube wells, because pumps need rain to work
 - (C) growing rabi crops, because they are sown during the monsoon
 - (D) practising crop rotation, because rotation requires heavy rain
- 14.** A farmer wants to grow a quick crop in the brief, hot window between harvesting his winter crop and sowing his monsoon crop. He is planning a:
- (A) rabi crop, grown through the long cool winter
 - (B) zaid crop, grown in the short summer between rabi and kharif
 - (C) kharif crop, sown with the southwest monsoon
 - (D) perennial crop that grows for several years
- 15.** Put these in correct seasonal order through one year starting after the spring: monsoon crops, winter crops, short summer crops. The right sequence is:

- (A) winter (rabi) into short summer (zaid) into monsoon (kharif)
- (B) monsoon (kharif) into short summer (zaid) into winter (rabi)
- (C) all three together, since seasons overlap completely
- (D) short summer (zaid) into monsoon (kharif) into winter (rabi)

16. A farmer notices that a crop sown with the first heavy June rains is harvested around the start of the cool season. This timing tells us it is most likely a:

- (A) rabi crop, which is sown in winter and harvested in spring
- (B) kharif crop, sown in the monsoon and harvested as the rains end
- (C) zaid crop, which is grown in the short summer
- (D) crop that ignores all seasons

17. Why do many rabi crops in dry-winter regions need irrigation while many kharif crops in the same regions do not?

- (A) because rabi crops dislike water and irrigation tricks them into growing
- (B) because the monsoon rains fall mainly in winter
- (C) because kharif crops fall in the rainy monsoon while rabi crops grow in the comparatively dry winter, so they must be watered artificially
- (D) because kharif crops are grown only with canal water

18. A government wants to reduce crop failures when the monsoon is unreliable. The most directly relevant investment, from the chapter, is to:

- (A) expand irrigation such as canals, wells and drip systems so crops get water even in weak-monsoon years
- (B) ban kharif crops so farming only happens in winter
- (C) encourage every farm to depend more on rainfall alone
- (D) convert all fields to a single crop grown every year

19. Two neighbouring fields have the same crop, but one is on fertile river-silt soil and the other on poorer soil. The likely reason the first yields more is that:

- (A) fertile soil needs no nutrients at all to feed plants
- (B) the richer soil is actually desert sand blown in by wind
- (C) alluvial soil, made of silt brought by rivers, is rich in nutrients and holds moisture well
- (D) river silt blocks roots and lowers yield

20. A farmer adds plenty of well-rotted compost and manure to a tired field and the crop improves. The best explanation is that the organic matter, or humus, has:

- (A) removed all water from the soil so roots stay dry
- (B) turned the soil into solid rock
- (C) killed the soil organisms that crops depend on
- (D) added nutrients and helped the soil hold moisture, making it more fertile

21. A farmer grows a nutrient-hungry crop in the same field every single year and the yields slowly fall. The chapter's recommended remedy is to:

- (A) grow the very same crop even more often to strengthen the soil
- (B) stop adding any humus so the soil can rest
- (C) remove all the topsoil and replace it with sand
- (D) rotate different crops through the field so the soil is not drained of one set of nutrients

22. A pulse crop is rotated into a field after a cereal, and the next cereal crop grows better. The most likely reason, consistent with the chapter, is that crop rotation:

- (A) physically spins the field to mix the soil
- (B) lets different crops use and return different nutrients, so the soil keeps a better nutrient balance
- (C) removes every nutrient from the soil at once
- (D) stops crops from growing in that field again

23. On a steep hillside, a farmer cuts the slope into level steps before planting. Two benefits follow. They are best described as:

- (A) the steps remove the need for any soil or water
- (B) the steps turn the hill into desert sand
- (C) the steps hold rainwater and reduce soil being washed downhill, allowing crops on steep land
- (D) the steps make crops grow without seeds

24. A farmer is deciding between saving seeds from her own harvest and buying high-yield seeds from a company. The most balanced, chapter-consistent reasoning is that:

- (A) saved seeds are cheap and suited to local conditions, while bought high-yield seeds can raise yields but cost money and often need more water and chemicals
- (B) saved seeds always out-yield every modern seed in every field
- (C) bought seeds are free and never need extra water or chemicals
- (D) the choice makes no difference because all seeds behave identically

25. A farmer relies only on rainfall and has no canal, well or pump. The single biggest risk to her harvest, by the chapter's logic, is:

- (A) too much canal water flooding the field
- (B) her pump breaking down
- (C) the drip system clogging
- (D) a weak or late monsoon, since rain is her only water source

26. Why is a low raised embankment, or bund, built around or across a field useful to a farmer?

- (A) it is a high-yield seed that grows faster
- (B) it holds water in the field and helps stop soil from being washed away
- (C) it is a chemical that kills pests
- (D) it is a short summer crop

27. India's many old tanks, bunds and step-wells, alongside modern canals and tube wells, best show that managing water for crops is:

- (A) a problem invented only after the Green Revolution
- (B) something Indian farmers never thought about
- (C) a long-standing concern that farmers have addressed with both traditional and modern methods
- (D) needed only in regions that never receive any rain

28. A survey of who actually sows, weeds, transplants and harvests on small farms across rural India would most likely find that the majority of this work is done by:

- (A) men only
- (B) machines only
- (C) women
- (D) hired workers brought from other countries

29. A textbook illustration labels its single 'typical Indian farmer' as a man with a tractor. The chapter would correct this picture mainly because:

- (A) tractors are never used anywhere in Indian farming
- (B) no men ever take part in Indian farming
- (C) Indian farming is done entirely by machines now
- (D) most agricultural work in rural India is done by women, so a woman is at least as representative of the typical farm worker

30. An economist notes that much of the field work done by women in rural India is unpaid family labour that does not show up in wage records. The most accurate conclusion is that:

- (A) women therefore do very little real farm work
- (B) women's contribution to farming can be undercounted, even though they do a large share of the actual work
- (C) only paid male labour counts as farming
- (D) farming needs no labour at all in modern India

31. A policy aims to support 'farmers' with training and credit but quietly assumes every farmer is a man who owns land. Why might this poorly serve rural farming?

- (A) because women contribute nothing to farming and need no support
- (B) because all farmers are wealthy landowners anyway
- (C) because it overlooks the many women and landless labourers who do much of the actual farm work
- (D) because farm labour is no longer needed in India

32. Recognising that women carry out most farm operations should most reasonably influence agricultural programmes to:

- (A) stop offering any support to farms with women
- (B) direct training, tools and support to the women who actually do the work

- (C) assume women will not benefit from better tools
- (D) replace all women workers with imported labour

33. A claim says, 'Because tractors and machines now do most field work, the role of women in Indian farming has ended.' The best correction is:

- (A) yes, machines now do everything, so no one works the fields
- (B) Indian farming is not fully mechanised, and women still do most of the agricultural work
- (C) women never did much farm work to begin with
- (D) men have always done all the farm work in India

34. The chief reason historians and the chapter call the work done by women the 'backbone' of rural farm operations is that:

- (A) they perform the bulk of the hands-on tasks like sowing, transplanting, weeding and harvesting
- (B) they own most of the country's farmland
- (C) they alone operate all the heavy machinery
- (D) they only manage farms from offices and never enter fields

35. The Green Revolution of the 1960s-70s combined a specific package of inputs to raise food output. That package was:

- (A) only saved traditional seeds with no added water or chemicals
- (B) only hand tools and rain, with no new seeds
- (C) barter trade instead of any new farming inputs
- (D) high-yielding seeds, irrigation, chemical fertilisers and pesticides, and machinery

36. The most important national-scale benefit credited to the Green Revolution was that India:

- (A) no longer needed any water for crops
- (B) made every farmer permanently wealthy
- (C) stopped all farming and switched to industry
- (D) became largely self-sufficient in food grains instead of depending on imports

37. Assertion: The Green Revolution raised India's food-grain output. Reason: Because it had no harmful side effects of any kind. Which is correct?

- (A) the assertion is true but the reason is false; the Green Revolution did raise output yet also caused real harms
- (B) both the assertion and the reason are true and the reason explains it
- (C) both the assertion and the reason are false
- (D) the assertion is false but the reason is true

38. A student writes that the Green Revolution was 'an unmixed success'. The single best correction, true to the chapter, is that it:

- (A) actually reduced India's food supply
- (B) raised food output but also impoverished soil, depleted groundwater, polluted soil and water, harmed health and left many farmers in debt
- (C) had no measurable effects at all
- (D) benefited only the soil and groundwater while lowering yields

39. Heavy, year-after-year pumping for irrigation in a Green-Revolution belt is most likely to lead, over time, to:

- (A) rising groundwater that floods the whole region
- (B) falling groundwater levels that threaten future water supply for crops and people
- (C) no change in groundwater because pumping does not affect it
- (D) the creation of brand-new underground rivers

40. Years of heavy chemical fertiliser and pesticide use in an intensively farmed area are most likely to cause, as a cause-and-effect chain, that:

- (A) soil and water become polluted and the soil's natural fertility is degraded over time
- (B) the soil grows steadily richer and cleaner each year
- (C) the chemicals vanish without touching soil or water
- (D) rainfall increases because of the chemicals

41. A region that led the Green Revolution now reports tired soil, low water tables and farmers struggling to repay loans for seeds and chemicals. The best single explanation is that:

- (A) these problems are unrelated to how the land was farmed
- (B) the region simply never adopted the Green Revolution
- (C) the same intensive, input-heavy methods that raised yields also degraded soil and water and pushed up costs, so the gains came with long-term costs
- (D) lower yields, not higher input costs, caused the debt

42. Why do scientists today actively search for more sustainable alternatives to heavy chemical farming?

- (A) because chemical methods produced far too little food
- (B) because chemicals turned out to be completely harmless
- (C) because the chemical- and water-intensive methods harmed soil, water and health over time, even as they raised output
- (D) because India decided to give up farming altogether

43. A farmer says, 'Modern bought seeds and chemicals are always better than traditional methods.' The most accurate reply from the chapter is:

- (A) high-yield seeds can raise output but cost money, demand more water and can damage soil, so many farmers wisely combine old and new methods
- (B) yes, modern inputs have no downsides at all

- (C) no, modern seeds never raise yields under any conditions
- (D) the two cannot be combined and a farmer must pick one forever

44. Comparing the Green Revolution's record fairly, the lesson the chapter draws about boosting yields with chemicals is that it can:

- (A) bring only benefits and never any cost
- (B) bring only costs and never any benefit
- (C) bring short-term gains in output but long-term costs to soil, water and health
- (D) have no connection to the state of soil or water

45. Which response to the Green Revolution's harms best fits the idea of organic farming?

- (A) using the maximum possible amount of chemicals
- (B) growing crops with no soil and no nutrients
- (C) replacing chemical fertilisers and pesticides with natural inputs like compost, manure and neem
- (D) abandoning food production entirely

46. A farmer treats a pest outbreak with a neem-based spray instead of a synthetic chemical pesticide. This choice is an example of:

- (A) the Green Revolution package in action
- (B) commercial export farming by definition
- (C) abandoning pest control altogether
- (D) organic farming, using a natural pest control in place of a chemical one

47. Which definition best captures 'sustainable farming' as the chapter uses it?

- (A) farming that uses up all resources as fast as possible
- (B) farming that produces no food in the present
- (C) farming that meets today's needs without harming the soil, water or the ability to keep farming in future
- (D) farming that ignores the future entirely to maximise this year's profit

48. A farmer combines saved local seeds and compost with a modest, careful use of some modern tools and inputs. The most likely reason for this blended approach is to:

- (A) make farming as harmful to the land as possible
- (B) get reasonable yields while protecting the soil and keeping costs down
- (C) follow a law that forbids any modern tool
- (D) prove that chemicals alone can never raise yields

49. Keeping soil productive through crop rotation, adding humus and preventing erosion is collectively called:

- (A) soil irrigation
- (B) soil export
- (C) soil mechanisation
- (D) soil conservation

50. An organic farm and a chemical-intensive farm both grow wheat. The clearest single difference between them is that the organic farm:

- (A) grows its wheat entirely without soil
- (B) produces no wheat at all
- (C) avoids synthetic fertilisers and pesticides in favour of natural inputs
- (D) uses far more chemical pesticide than the other farm

51. Why might shifting a chemical-heavy farm toward organic and natural methods improve groundwater over many years?

- (A) reducing chemical inputs and heavy irrigation lessens pollution and slows the depletion of underground water
- (B) because organic farming uses no water and needs no soil
- (C) because natural inputs magically refill aquifers overnight
- (D) because organic crops do not grow and so no water is used

52. A farmer worries that switching fully to organic methods at once might lower her income in the first years. The most reasonable, chapter-consistent path is to:

- (A) blend traditional and natural methods with careful use of modern inputs, balancing yield, soil health and cost
- (B) use the heaviest possible dose of chemicals to be safe
- (C) stop farming until organic prices rise
- (D) ignore soil health entirely and chase maximum yield forever

53. Why does the chapter present organic and natural farming as a 'response' rather than as the original way farming was done?

- (A) because farming before the Green Revolution always used heavy chemicals
- (B) because organic methods were invented in the 1960s alongside the chemicals
- (C) they are deliberate moves to reduce chemical harm after the Green Revolution showed those harms
- (D) because natural inputs were unknown until very recently

54. Mechanisation, such as using tractors and threshers, mainly helps farmers by:

- (A) removing the need for soil, seeds and water
- (B) doing heavy field tasks faster and with less manual effort, especially on larger holdings
- (C) guaranteeing that every farmer becomes wealthy
- (D) making farming possible only in winter

55. A small farmer with a tiny, fragmented plot is unsure whether to buy a large tractor. The most balanced view from the chapter is that mechanisation:

- (A) is equally easy and cheap for every farm regardless of size
- (B) suits larger holdings better, and may be costly or hard to use on very small, fragmented plots
- (C) is impossible to use anywhere in India
- (D) removes the need for any human labour on every farm

56. Which set best names the real, present-day challenges facing Indian farmers as the chapter describes them?

- (A) shrinking and fragmented landholdings, climate change, uncertain market prices, water stress and debt
- (B) too much land, perfect prices and no climate of any kind
- (C) a complete absence of any difficulty whatsoever
- (D) having no crops at all to grow anywhere

57. A farmer grows a good harvest but earns very little because the market price collapses when everyone sells at once. This illustrates which challenge facing farmers?

- (A) a weak monsoon ruining the crop
- (B) soil that produced no harvest at all
- (C) a complete lack of any buyers in the country
- (D) the uncertainty of market prices, which can leave even a good harvest unprofitable

58. Erratic rainfall, unexpected heatwaves and shifting seasons are making it harder for farmers to plan sowing and harvest. The challenge this most directly names is:

- (A) an excess of irrigation water everywhere
- (B) the soil suddenly becoming too fertile
- (C) the disappearance of all farm labour overnight
- (D) climate change, which disrupts the timing and reliability of seasons and rainfall

59. Across generations, family land is divided among heirs until each farmer holds only a small scattered patch. This trend chiefly worsens farming by:

- (A) enlarging each farm so machines become essential
- (B) improving soil fertility on every patch
- (C) guaranteeing higher prices for the crop
- (D) shrinking and fragmenting holdings, making efficient farming and machinery use harder

60. A single statement that best summarises the chapter's corrected picture of Indian farming is:

- (A) the Green Revolution had mixed effects, most rural farm work is done by women, and many farmers wisely blend traditional and modern methods
- (B) the Green Revolution was purely good, and the typical farmer is a man using only chemicals
- (C) all Indian farming is identical and never changes
- (D) women do no farm work and machines now do everything

Solutions — Social Science (Class 7), Chapter 13: The Story of Indian Farming — Paper 3

Paper 3 — (progressively harder)

Marking: +4 correct, –1 wrong, 0 unattempted. Maximum marks **240**.

Answer Key

Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans	Q	Ans
1	C	11	C	21	D	31	C	41	C	51	A
2	A	12	D	22	B	32	B	42	C	52	A
3	B	13	A	23	C	33	B	43	A	53	C
4	B	14	B	24	A	34	A	44	C	54	B
5	A	15	D	25	D	35	D	45	C	55	B
6	B	16	B	26	B	36	D	46	D	56	A
7	D	17	C	27	C	37	A	47	C	57	D
8	D	18	A	28	C	38	B	48	B	58	D
9	A	19	C	29	D	39	B	49	D	59	D
10	A	20	D	30	B	40	A	50	C	60	A

Answer-key distribution: A = 15, B = 15, C = 15, D = 15.

Worked Solutions

1. (C) What names a farming type is its main purpose. Here the household grows mainly to eat, so it is subsistence farming; an occasional tiny exchange does not change the purpose. Selling in the market for income is what would make it commercial. The size of the plot or the intensity of cultivation is a separate idea from purpose, and rice is a cereal grown in a field, not the fruit-vegetable-flower cultivation that horticulture means.

2. (A) How heavily land is worked per unit area is the intensive-versus-extensive distinction: X farms intensively, Y extensively. Whether the output is eaten or sold (subsistence vs commercial) is about purpose, not about effort per hectare. Kharif and rabi name seasons, not intensity, and neither farmer is described as avoiding or using chemicals, so the organic/Green-Revolution contrast does not apply.

3. (B) The defining shift is purpose: growing chiefly to sell makes it commercial farming. Intensity (effort per area) may or may not change and is a different axis. Whether the field is watered by rain or by irrigation is unrelated to whether the crop is sold, and stopping

food-growing says nothing about whether chemicals are avoided, which is what organic would require.

4. (B) Subsistence versus commercial is decided by why the crop is grown, and a farmer's purpose can shift between years, so the same field can fall under either label. Soil type does not flip yearly, and a field does not move. The two terms are opposites, not synonyms: one means growing to eat, the other growing to sell.

5. (A) Labour is one of the key inputs of farming, and hired workers like her are a large part of it; in rural India most such work is in fact done by women. She is not a subsistence farmer because she keeps none of the crop, and not a commercial farmer because she owns and sells nothing. Far from irrelevant, the work of landless labourers is essential to the harvest.

6. (B) Growing fruits, vegetables and flowers is horticulture, and selling all of it makes the purpose commercial, so both labels apply. She is not growing cereals, and she is not keeping the produce to eat, so subsistence does not fit. Nothing tells us the plot is large and thinly worked (extensive) or that it relies only on rain, and neither the Green Revolution nor hillside terracing is described.

7. (D) The chapter treats subsistence and commercial farming as suited to different situations, not as one being universally superior: commercial farming brings cash but also market and cost risks, while subsistence farming guarantees a family's own food. Saying selling always beats eating ignores food security. Subsistence farms are usually smaller and need not out-produce commercial ones. And the two are clearly different in purpose, so the comparison is meaningful.

8. (D) Spreading limited effort thinly over a large area for a low yield per hectare is extensive farming, and depending on the rains makes it rain-fed. Intensive irrigated farming would mean heavy inputs and artificial watering on each unit of land, the opposite of what he does. He is growing a field crop, not fruits and flowers, and the Green-Revolution package specifically means high-yield seeds, irrigation and chemicals, which he is not using.

9. (A) Indian farming varies along many axes at once: soil and climate differ by region, crops follow different seasons, some land is rain-fed and some irrigated, and purposes range from subsistence to commercial, so the practices are far from uniform. Claiming every farm uses identical seeds and tools, or that all farms are commercial and irrigated, simply restates the false uniformity. And farming has changed greatly, including through the Green Revolution, so it did not freeze in ancient times.

10. (A) Kharif crops are sown with the incoming southwest monsoon in the hot, rainy season, so they can live on the natural rains. Rabi crops grow in the cool dry winter and usually need irrigation because there is little rain then. Zaid crops fill the short hot gap

between rabi and kharif and again lack monsoon rain. Rainfall in India is highly seasonal, not even across the year, so the season choice matters.

11. (C) Rabi crops like wheat are matched to the cool, comparatively dry winter and are harvested in spring, so sowing wheat in the hot, wet monsoon mismatches its needs and the crop suffers. Crops are not season-neutral; that is why kharif, rabi and zaid exist. Naming it a kharif or zaid crop does not change wheat's growing requirements, and no crop ripens in two weeks.

12. (D) The northeast monsoon brings rain mainly in the October-to-December window, so that is when she can count on it. June to September is the period of the southwest monsoon, a different system. March to May is the hot pre-monsoon stretch, and Indian rainfall is concentrated in monsoon periods rather than spread evenly through the year.

13. (A) Rain-fed farms rely on the monsoon as their only water source, so a weak monsoon hurts them most. Irrigated farms can draw on canals, wells or pumps and are buffered against a poor monsoon. Rabi crops are sown in winter, not during the monsoon, so a weak monsoon affects them less directly, and crop rotation is a soil practice that does not itself demand heavy rain.

14. (B) The short, hot stretch between the rabi harvest and the kharif sowing is the zaid season, so a quick crop there is a zaid crop. A rabi crop occupies the cool winter, and a kharif crop is sown with the southwest monsoon, neither of which is the in-between window. A multi-year perennial is the opposite of a quick short-season crop.

15. (D) After spring comes the short hot zaid window, then the southwest monsoon brings the kharif season, and after the rains the cool rabi winter follows, so the order is zaid, kharif, rabi. Starting with winter or placing zaid after kharif breaks that calendar. The seasons follow one another rather than running all at once.

16. (B) Sowing with the June monsoon rains and harvesting as the cool season begins is the kharif pattern. Rabi crops are sown in the cool season and harvested in spring, the reverse timing. Zaid crops occupy the short hot gap, not the monsoon. Crops follow seasons closely, so the timing is a real clue to which season it belongs to.

17. (C) Kharif crops grow during the wet monsoon and can live on rain, whereas rabi crops grow in the dry winter when little rain falls, so they often need irrigation. Rabi crops need water like any crop; irrigation supplies it, it does not trick the plant. The monsoon falls in the rainy season, not winter, and kharif crops in such regions rely largely on monsoon rain rather than on canals.

18. (A) Because irrigation supplies water by artificial means, it cushions farms against a weak or late monsoon, so expanding it directly reduces monsoon-driven crop failures. Banning monsoon crops would waste the season's rain rather than help. Pushing more

reliance on rainfall would increase, not reduce, vulnerability. And growing one crop every year drains soil nutrients and does nothing for water supply.

19. (C) Alluvial soil is fertile silt deposited by rivers and supports good yields because it carries nutrients and retains moisture. Even fertile soil supplies nutrients to plants; that is precisely why it is fertile. Alluvium is river-borne silt, not wind-blown desert sand, and rather than blocking roots it makes a productive, workable bed for them.

20. (D) Humus is decomposed plant and animal matter; mixing it in supplies nutrients and improves the soil's ability to hold moisture, so the crop does better. It does not dry out the soil; it helps retain water. It loosens and enriches soil rather than hardening it into rock, and it supports, not destroys, the living matter that keeps soil healthy.

21. (D) Crop rotation means growing different crops in turn so that no single nutrient is exhausted, which is exactly the fix for falling yields from monocropping. Repeating the same hungry crop would drain the soil further. Withholding humus removes a source of nutrients rather than helping, and replacing fertile topsoil with sand destroys the very thing that grows crops.

22. (B) Rotation works because different crops draw on and return different nutrients, keeping the soil's nutrient balance from being drained, which is why the following cereal does better. Rotation does not mean spinning the field; it means changing the crop grown. It conserves nutrients rather than stripping them all, and it keeps the field productive rather than ending cultivation.

23. (C) Terrace farming cuts a slope into level steps so that rainwater is held on each step and soil is not washed away, letting crops grow on steep ground. The steps still need soil and water; they manage them better. They conserve soil rather than turning land to sand, and they do nothing to remove the need for seeds, which every crop requires.

24. (A) The honest comparison is a trade-off: saved seeds cost little and fit local conditions, while bought high-yield seeds can lift yields but bring extra cost and usually more water and chemicals, which is why many farmers blend the two. Saved seeds do not always out-yield modern ones, bought seeds are not free and often do demand more inputs, and seeds clearly differ, so the choice does matter.

25. (D) A rain-fed farm depends entirely on the monsoon, so a weak or late monsoon is its chief threat. The other risks all assume irrigation equipment she does not have: there is no canal to flood the field, no pump to break and no drip system to clog. That is exactly why irrigation, where available, makes a farm less vulnerable.

26. (B) A bund is a low raised embankment that traps water in the field and reduces soil erosion, which is why farmers build them as part of water and soil management. It is not a seed, since it does not grow; not a chemical, since it does not kill pests; and not a crop, since it is an earthen structure, not a plant.

27. (C) The mix of ancient tanks and bunds with modern canals and wells shows that storing and supplying water for crops has been a concern across the ages, tackled by both old and new means. It was not invented in the Green-Revolution era, and the very existence of these structures proves farmers thought hard about water. Water management matters even in regions that get seasonal rain, not only where it never rains.

28. (C) The chapter stresses that in rural India most agricultural operations are carried out by women, so a survey of who does the hands-on field work would mostly find women. It is not done by men only, nor by machines only, since much of this labour is manual, and it is local rural labour rather than imported foreign workers.

29. (D) Since women do most of the farm work in rural India, picturing the typical farmer only as a man misrepresents who actually farms, so a woman is at least as representative. The correction is not that tractors are never used or that men never farm, both of which overstate the case, and Indian farming is far from fully mechanised, so machines have not replaced people.

30. (B) If much of women's work is unpaid and unrecorded, the records understate it, yet women still perform a large share of the real work, so their contribution is undercounted rather than small. Unpaid work is still genuine farm labour, so it is wrong to say only paid male labour counts, and farming plainly still depends heavily on human labour.

31. (C) Such a policy fails because a large part of farm work is done by women and by landless labourers who may not own land, so assuming every farmer is a male landowner leaves them out. It is not because women contribute nothing, which is false, nor because all farmers are wealthy owners, and farm labour is still essential, so support for workers matters.

32. (B) If women do most of the work, then training, tools and support aimed at them will reach the people actually farming, which is the sensible response. Withdrawing support from farms with women, or assuming women cannot benefit from better tools, would ignore the very workers carrying the load, and replacing them with imported labour neither follows from the fact nor reflects how rural farming operates.

33. (B) The correction is twofold: Indian farming is far from fully mechanised, and women continue to do most of the actual field work, so their role has not ended. Saying machines do everything overstates mechanisation, claiming women never worked the fields contradicts the chapter, and asserting men always did all the work is the very misconception being challenged.

34. (A) Women are central to rural farming because they do the majority of the physical field tasks, from sowing to harvest. It is not because they own most farmland, since land ownership is often not in their name, nor because they alone run heavy machinery. And they are very much in the fields doing the work, not merely managing from a distance.

35. (D) The Green Revolution paired high-yielding seed varieties with irrigation, chemical fertilisers and pesticides, and farm machinery to lift food-grain production. It was precisely not a return to saved seeds without chemicals, nor a no-new-seed system of hand tools and rain. And it concerned farming inputs and yields, not a change in how goods were traded.

36. (D) Its great success was helping India feed itself by sharply raising food-grain output, reducing dependence on imports. It did not remove the need for water; in fact it relied heavily on irrigation. It did not make all farmers wealthy, and many later faced debt, and it boosted farming rather than ending it.

37. (A) Output did rise, so the assertion is true, but the claim that there were no harmful side effects is false: the Green Revolution also degraded soil, depleted groundwater, polluted soil and water, harmed health and pushed many farmers into debt. So the reason is wrong while the assertion stands, which rules out the options that call the assertion false or the reason true.

38. (B) The accurate verdict is mixed: yields rose, but at the cost of degraded soil, falling groundwater, chemical pollution, health harms and farmer indebtedness. It did not reduce the food supply, since output rose, and it certainly had measurable effects. It did not benefit soil and groundwater; those were among the things it harmed.

39. (B) Drawing water from underground faster than it is replenished lowers the water table, so heavy pumping depletes groundwater and threatens future supply. Pumping removes water, so it cannot raise the water table or flood the region, and it certainly affects groundwater rather than leaving it unchanged. It does not manufacture new underground rivers.

40. (A) Sustained heavy chemical use pollutes soil and water and wears down the soil's natural fertility, which is the chain the chapter describes. It does not make soil richer and cleaner; that is the reverse of what happens. Chemicals do not simply vanish without effect, and they have no power to increase rainfall.

41. (C) The pattern ties together: the intensive Green-Revolution methods lifted yields but also drained soil and groundwater and raised input costs, so the very same approach produced both the gains and the later troubles. The problems are clearly linked to the farming method, the region did adopt the revolution, and the debt traces to the high cost of seeds and chemicals, not to low yields.

42. (C) The push for sustainable methods comes from the long-term harm that chemical- and water-heavy farming did to soil, water and health, despite its yield gains. It is not because those methods produced too little food, since they raised output, nor because chemicals proved harmless, which is the opposite of what was found, and India has not abandoned farming.

43. (A) The balanced reply is that modern high-yield seeds can lift output but bring real costs in money, water and soil damage, which is exactly why many farmers blend traditional and modern methods. Modern inputs do have downsides, so 'no downsides' is wrong; modern seeds can raise yields, so 'never' is wrong; and the methods can be mixed, so a farmer is not forced to choose one forever.

44. (C) The fair lesson is a trade-off across time: chemical-boosted yields can give short-term output gains while imposing long-term costs on soil, water and health. Saying it brings only benefits ignores the documented harms, saying only costs ignores the real rise in food output, and it is plainly connected to the condition of soil and water, which it degraded.

45. (C) Organic farming answers the chemical problem by swapping chemical fertilisers and pesticides for natural ones such as compost, manure and neem. Using more chemicals is the opposite of organic. Organic farming still uses soil and supplies nutrients, just naturally, and it certainly does not abandon food production; it grows food differently.

46. (D) Choosing a natural input like neem over a synthetic pesticide is a hallmark of organic farming. The Green-Revolution package is defined by chemical inputs, the reverse of this choice. Selling crops abroad is unrelated to which kind of pesticide is used, and she is still controlling pests, just by natural means rather than abandoning the effort.

47. (C) Sustainable farming means meeting present needs while protecting soil, water and the capacity to farm in the future. Using up resources as fast as possible, or ignoring the future for this year's profit, is the very opposite of sustainability, and farming that produces no food today fails the 'meets today's needs' part of the definition.

48. (B) Blending traditional and modern methods lets a farmer earn decent yields while guarding the soil and limiting costs, which is exactly the balance the chapter highlights. The aim is to protect the land, not harm it; there is no law banning all modern tools; and the point is not to disprove chemicals but to combine the strengths of both approaches.

49. (D) Practices that protect and maintain soil health, such as rotation, adding humus and stopping erosion, are together called soil conservation. Irrigation is about supplying water, not protecting soil; exporting soil is not a farming practice; and mechanisation refers to using machines, not to conserving the soil itself.

50. (C) The defining difference is that the organic farm shuns synthetic fertilisers and pesticides and uses natural inputs instead. Organic wheat still grows in soil, and the organic farm does produce wheat, so the no-soil and no-wheat claims are wrong. Using more chemical pesticide would make it the chemical-intensive farm, not the organic one.

51. (A) Cutting chemical inputs and easing back on heavy irrigation reduces water pollution and slows groundwater depletion, so over time the groundwater situation can improve. Organic farming still uses water and soil, so 'no water, no soil' is wrong; natural

inputs do not refill aquifers overnight; and organic crops do grow and use water, just more sustainably.

52. (A) A sensible middle path is to combine natural methods with measured modern inputs, balancing yield, soil health and cost while she transitions, which is just the blended approach the chapter endorses. Piling on chemicals worsens the long-term harm she is trying to escape, stopping farming sacrifices her livelihood, and ignoring soil health to chase yield repeats the Green Revolution's mistake.

53. (C) Organic and natural farming are framed as a response because they consciously cut chemical inputs after the Green Revolution exposed the damage those inputs caused. Older traditional farming did not rely on heavy chemicals, so the chemical era is the new thing being responded to; organic methods draw on long-known natural inputs rather than being invented in the 1960s; and natural inputs like manure and neem have been used for ages.

54. (B) Machines speed up heavy tasks and reduce manual labour, which is most useful on larger holdings, and that is the core benefit of mechanisation. It does not remove the need for soil, seeds or water, which crops still require; it does not guarantee wealth, since machines also cost money; and it does not restrict farming to one season.

55. (B) Heavy machinery fits larger holdings and can be costly or impractical on very small, fragmented plots, so the small farmer's caution is reasonable. Mechanisation is not equally easy and cheap for every farm, it is certainly used in India, so it is not impossible, and it reduces rather than wholly removes the need for human labour, which farms still rely on.

56. (A) Today's farmers face shrinking, fragmented land, climate change, unstable market prices, water stress and debt, and naming these is the accurate answer. The other options are unreal: farmers do not enjoy abundant land and perfect prices, they clearly do face difficulties, and India grows a wide range of crops, so 'no crops' is false.

57. (D) Earning little despite a good harvest because prices crash is the problem of uncertain market prices, a real challenge for farmers. It is not a weak monsoon, since the harvest was good, nor barren soil, since the field produced well, and the issue is the low price, not a total absence of buyers.

58. (D) Erratic rains, heatwaves and shifting seasons are signs of climate change, which makes the timing of farming unreliable. It is not an excess of irrigation water, nor soil becoming too fertile, which would not disrupt planning, and it is not a sudden loss of farm labour, which is a separate matter.

59. (D) Repeated division shrinks and scatters holdings, which makes efficient farming and the use of machinery harder, a real challenge the chapter notes. It does the opposite of

enlarging farms, it does not improve soil fertility, and it has no power to guarantee higher crop prices, which depend on the market.

60. (A) The accurate summary holds three threads together: the Green Revolution's record was mixed, women do most rural farm work, and many farmers combine old and new methods. Calling the Green Revolution purely good ignores its harms and misnames the typical worker, claiming all farming is identical denies its real variety, and saying women do no work while machines do everything contradicts the chapter on both counts.